8

How Citizen Control of Politics Is Negated, and the Puzzles That Remain

According to Porto de Oliveira, 'there are still no significant studies on negative cases of PB, that is, where the following question has not been answered: What happened with PB, in certain cases, for it not to be successful?' (2017: 240–1). It is a criticism levelled at scholars of democratic innovations in general (Spada and Ryan, 2017). In explaining success across cases I have not yet exhausted the evidence base. We can learn much from independently explaining the absence of citizen control. In this penultimate chapter before concluding I focus attention both on this question and on unearthing some final stones by considering cases and theories that did not make their way into formal analysis. I show that where programmes have failed to empower, there are at least two sufficient explanations. One is the absence of participatory leadership alone, which resonates with the idea that participatory leadership is a necessary condition for success. The other is the combined absence of bureaucratic support, autonomous civil society and financial freedoms. Designers or adopters of participatory programmes are reminded that the otherwise beneficial features of political leadership can be immaterial where civil society and organizational staff participation is desultory, and where funds are lacking.

I then identify the key puzzle that remains – what distinguishes citizen control from its absence in cases where participatory leadership is present? The answers to this question remain inconclusive. Future research may need to investigate more closely whether the presence of some conditions is beneficial in the early stages of development of PB

https://doi.org/10.46692/9781529209938.012 Published online by Cambridge University Press

but less so later, and vice versa. For example, where political leaders instigate participatory reform, absence of critical civil society in the presence of strong bureaucratic support could allow administrators to develop positive mobilization strategies that reach out to new publics early on, but in the long run, exclusion of civil society leaders will encourage an exclusive technocracy. I cannot test these ideas with the data I have here, but offer some plausible hypotheses based on case knowledge for future research.

Let us first return very briefly, as we have in previous chapters, to our initial examples of QCA approaches to PB data to iron out some final methodological assumptions. Although I assume asymmetrical causal explanations, this does not mean I can analyse sufficiency for the negation without regard to the analysis of either preceding necessity relations or the analysis of sufficiency for the outcome's presence. That is, the analysis in Chapters 6 and 7 is relevant, and I need to be able to present results that are coherent across the piece. Table 8.1 shows the outcomes of sufficiency analysis for the three different conceptualizations of the absence of the outcome of 'deepened democracy' implied by initial efforts to represent Wampler's final summary of cases in his 2007 study. On this occasion we get the same substantive conclusion in each test – that the absence of citizen willingness to support contentious politics is sufficient for the absence of deep democracy. We can immediately note the asymmetry of this explanation to any of those offered in Table 7.2 in Chapter 7. We did not think that the presence of contentious politics was sufficient for deep democracy. Despite the same sufficient condition being named for each row in the table, the different answers rely on different (and sometimes problematic) assumptions. Revealing those assumptions again helps reveal coherence of claims.

Given that in Chapter 6 using calibration 'C' it was held that both mayoral support and citizen support for contentious politics are

Table 8.1: Analysis of sufficient conditions for the negation of deepened democracy across 10 cases

Outcome tested	Sufficient conditions	Inclusion	PRI	Coverage
1 ~deepened democracy (A)	**~citizen contentious politics**	0.745	0.662	0.603
2 ~deepened democracy (B)	**~citizen contentious politics**	0.835	0.802	0.717
3 ~deepened democracy (C)	**~citizen contentious politics**	1	1	0.5

Note: Bold = core condition.

https://doi.org/10.46692/9781529209938.012 Published online by Cambridge University Press

necessary conditions for deep democracy, we should logically deduce that their absence is sufficient for deepened democracy's absence:[1]

Absence of mayoral support AND

Absence of citizen support for contentious politics → ~ deep democracy

Wampler makes a version of that claim in his conclusion (2007a: 281), and it is confirmed here. In fact, row 3 of Table 8.1 reports that the absence of citizen contentious politics alone is sufficient to negate deep democracy under the most restrictive calibration. What has happened to mayoral support?

Similar to Chapter 7, a minimization has taken place, where mayoral support has been eliminated as a relevant explanatory factor. If we consult the truth table for this outcome in Table 8.2, we see that both the first and second rows are consistently sufficient for the outcome (~deep democracy). And therefore, because the outcome is seen regardless of variance in mayoral support, that condition is eliminated. This leaves us with us a more parsimonious solution that absence of citizen support for contentious politics alone is sufficient to negate a deepened democracy.

Nevertheless, as we saw, the minimization here masks a coding issue where 0.51 was chosen as a membership score without much thought to its relation to theory and cases. Again, a reinterpretation across the crossover point would push a number of cases into different truth table rows and lead to a different minimization.

The solution presented in row 1 of Table 8.1 also hides an important uncertainty for interpretation created by the conceptualization and measurement of deepened democracy 'A' – that of simultaneous subset relations for an outcome and its negation (see Schneider and Wagemann, 2012: 238). The combination of the presence of mayoral support and absence of support for contentious politics is fully or almost fully consistent with the sufficiency superset relationship for absence of deep democracy. Nevertheless, that combination is also fully or almost fully consistent with sufficiency for the super–subset relation for the presence of deep democracy. To hold to both claims is illogical. The scenario is always made possible when accepting some inconsistency

[1] Logically, if X is necessary for Y, then ~X is sufficient for ~Y. This should not be confused with an erroneous causal symmetry statement that if X is sufficient for Y, then ~X is sufficient for ~Y.

https://doi.org/10.46692/9781529209938.012 Published online by Cambridge University Press

Table 8.2: Truth table for outcome '~deepened democracy C'

	Mayoral support	Citizen contentious politics	~Deep democracy	Number of cases	Inclusion	PRI	Cases
1	0	0	1	2	1	1	Blumenau, Rio Claro
2	1	0	1	2	1	1	Santo André, São Paulo
3	1	1	0	6	0.505	0.505	Belo Horizonte, Ipatinga, Port Alegre (i), Porto Alegre (ii), Porto Alegre (iii), Recife
4	0	1	?	0			

in fuzzy sets while also declaring conditions that reach a threshold of consistency lower than 1 to be deemed necessary or sufficient. The cases of Santo André and São Paulo here represent the true logical contradictions of the super–subset relation that are relatively good examples of a truth table row but are not actually consistent with the sufficiency subset relationship. Normally we can use the proportional reduction in inconsistency (PRI) measure, as mentioned briefly in Chapter 7, to adjudicate which interpretation is more appropriate, but because in 'A' we used a fairly arbitrary calibration of the 'medium' cases, that PRI measure is not really interpretable. It is, yet again, an example of the importance of conceptual clarity in calibration.

Wider analysis of five conditions

I have already discussed at length the considerations involved in calibration for the wider analysis incorporating five conditions. The truth table and chosen minimization are reproduced in Tables 8.3 and 8.4. The explanatory model can be written as:

$$\sim ms \star \mathbf{\sim ple} \star (\sim ccp \star FBS + \sim rep \star \sim fbs) \rightarrow \sim \text{deepened democracy}$$

Note the causal asymmetry with the solution presented for sufficiency – this is not the mirror image of the explanation of deepened democracy

https://doi.org/10.46692/9781529209938.012 Published online by Cambridge University Press

Table 8.3: Truth table for outcome (5 conditions)

#	MS	CCP	PLE	REP	FBS	OUT: ~DD	Inclu-sion	PRI	Cases
2	0	0	0	0	1	1	1	1	Rio Claro
4	0	0	0	1	1	1	1	1	Blumenau
9	0	1	0	0	0	1	1	1	São Paulo
29	1	1	1	0	0	0	0.815	0.5	Recife, Santo André
14	0	1	1	0	1	0	0.798	0.333	Belo Horizonte
31	1	1	1	1	0	0	0.727	0	Porto Alegre (i)
24	1	0	1	1	1	0	0.671	0.405	Ipatinga
32	1	1	1	1	1	0	0.628	0.147	Porto Alegre (ii)

Note: MS is mayoral support; CCP is citizens using contentious and cooperative politics; PLE is positive legislative environment; FBS is financial basis to spend; REP is rules encouraging participation; OUT: DD is ~deepened democracy (the outcome).

Table 8.4: Sufficient conditions for ~ deepened democracy (5 conditions)

Expression[1]	Inclusion	PRI	Coverage	Unique coverage	Cases
~ms*~ccp* **~ple***FBS	1.000	1.000	0.426	0.272	Rio Claro, Blumenau
~ms***~ple*** ~rep*~fbs	1.000	1.000	0.346	0.191	São Paulo
Model	1.000	1.000	0.618		

[1] Bold = core condition. Intermediate solution with consistency cut-off of 1. ms is mayoral support; ccp is citizens using contentious and cooperative politics; ple is positive legislative environment; fbs is financial basis to spend; rep is rules encouraging participation. PRI is proportional reduction in inconsistency.

provided in Chapter 7. This relatively conservative solution is highly consistent and produced by holding theoretical explanations that the presence of mayoral support, citizen use of cooperative and contentious politics or a positive legislative environment should not be included in minimizations. The absence of political support is clearly key to any explanation of the avoidance of democratic improvements in these Brazilian PB programmes. Any explanation of PB failure on the evidence of this data must include within it the absence of a positive legislative environment. When political willingness is absent in the mayor's office and the legislators' offices at the same time, there are two further conjunctions of conditions which, when fulfilled, will

https://doi.org/10.46692/9781529209938.012 Published online by Cambridge University Press

suffice for negation of success. First, when this absence of political will meets a tame civil society AND money is available, deeper democracy through PB is negated. This makes a lot of sense – where politicians are not really interested in participatory politics, civil society is not holding them to account, even though money is available it will be spent elsewhere in these circumstances. This fairly well describes Blumenau and Rio Claro. Alternatively, where money is not available, and the rules act against flourishing of participatory programmes, the actions of civil society are rendered redundant. The explanation fits the case of São Paulo.

The first finding combining absence of political support with absence of appropriate civil society tools in the presence of available funds can help explain why sponsoring organizations such as NGOs and the World Bank have moved to combine their focus on civil society capacity with greater attention to local politicians. Donor organizations have moved in the direction of identifying investment areas where they have local 'participatory champions'.[2] The QCA here has confirmed much of Wampler's work, but it also adds some nuance as to what conditions are more necessary parts of explanations in different contexts. The structured approach to comparison is useful even for small-N researchers to help them know if their face is too close to the page to systematically consider all permutations and to summarize them effectively.

One of the advantages of traditional qualitative research that compliments QCA is the ability to refer to case-specific causal explanations that can qualify results and point to the need for further cross-case analysis, including new variables. For example, we could turn to investigate, now, the combination of development and financial situation conditions in a more sophisticated analysis across cases. Or, based on the less conclusive analysis of evidence for necessity, we might wish to investigate the impact of alternative participatory fora on PB, such as Future City in Santo André, which Wampler mentions had influential effects. The idea that PB may suffer when it is not the only game in town or where other participatory mechanisms are more appropriate to a city's political culture is a recurring rather than prevalent theory in the literature (see Avritzer, 2009, for a good discussion of this), and would benefit from greater data collection. What comes out of the QCA on this reading is a clearer indication of where one needs to make more detailed explanatory arguments. Schneider and Rohfling (2013) have made contributions that detail

[2] My thanks to Brian Wampler for this suggestion in personal correspondence.

https://doi.org/10.46692/9781529209938.012 Published online by Cambridge University Press

exactly how researchers can use QCA to make decisions about which cases should be selected for within-case analysis, and where QCA is best combined with process-tracing.

Negating participatory budgeting over a larger number of cases

Do those explanations chime across our larger sample of cases? To some extent, yes, but more cases add the evidential basis for greater clarity. Table 8.5 presents the truth table for the negation of the outcome.

The analysis of the negation of the outcome (that is, the absence of citizen control in PB) is neater than others I present in some ways. If we take a consistency threshold of 0.84 here and explain all rows containing good examples of failed participation, we introduce only one true logical contradiction, which is the case of Rome XI district (row 13). The Rome case is not the strongest example of successful outcomes in that Talpin reports evidence of informal exclusion and considers it a 'marginally empowered' case (2011: 149). It is considered more in the set of citizen control because he reports mobilization with good demographic participation, high autonomy and co-decision-making. PT-Recife (ii) and Cusco also provide evidence of some inconsistency in degree to the sufficiency of the same truth table row, because they resemble its conditions to a small extent, despite being extremely poor examples of PB failure. The row represents the combination of relatively strong leadership in political and civil society with a more resistant bureaucracy and financial constraints. It characterizes well some of the more mediocre cases of PB – Santo André and Moquegua fit that description. It is the most ambiguous row in the dataset. Therefore, I exclude it from the explanation here, but later report the one noteworthy change including it would bring to the solution.

Taking a sufficiency exclusion threshold of 0.87, the following solution containing two sufficient conjunctions for negation of citizen control in PB decisions is produced from the truth table:

~pl*(~fbs + ~csd*~bsp) → ~ccpb (i)

+

~csd*~bsp*~fbs → ~ccpb (ii)

Table 8.6 reports relatively strong measures of fit. It reports the most parsimonious solution that makes use of the three logical remainders

https://doi.org/10.46692/9781529209938.012 Published online by Cambridge University Press

Table 8.5: Truth table for negation of citizen control of PB

#	PL	CSD	BSP	FBS	OUT: ~CCPB	N	Incl.	PRI	Cases
1	0	0	0	0	1	4	1	1	Ayacucho, Loreto, Mauá, Toronto
2	0	0	0	1	1	2	1	1	Blumenau, Rio Claro
3	0	0	1	0	1	1	1	1	Buenos Aires
9	1	0	0	0	1	1	0.967	0.837	Berlin-Lichtenberg
5	0	1	0	0	1	2	0.904	0.785	Recife (i), São Paulo
7	0	1	1	0	1	1	0.87	0.573	Cajamarca
13	1	1	0	0	1	3	0.842	0.569	Moquegua, Rome, Santo André
11	1	0	1	0	0	3	0.805	0.395	Camaragibe, Lambayeque, Morsang-sur-Orge
10	1	0	0	1	0	3	0.775	0.299	Montevideo, Poitou-Charentes, Sevilla
14	1	1	0	1	0	4	0.744	0.41	Belo Horizonte, Chicago 49th Ward, Córdoba, New York
12	1	0	1	1	0	3	0.733	0.272	Betim, Gravataí, Ipatinga
15	1	1	1	0	0	2	0.697	0.087	Cusco, Recife (ii)
16	1	1	1	1	0	2	0.555	0.054	João Monlevade, Porto Alegre
4	0	0	1	1	?	0	–	–	
6	0	1	0	1	?	0	–	–	
8	0	1	1	1	?	0	–	–	

Note: PL is participatory leadership; CSD is autonomous civil society demands; BSP is bureaucratic support; FBS is financial basis for spending; CCPB is citizen control of decisions in PB; N is number of cases, Incl. is Inclusion score. PRI refers to Proportional Reduction in Inconsistency.

in rows 4, 6 and 8 to eliminate the more peripheral factors from the first solution term (i). On this occasion, these are relatively easy counterfactual assumptions to make. First, we were unable to use logical remainders in the analysis of the outcome in Chapter 7, so there is no fear of making contradictory assumptions. Also, based on what we have learned so far, it would be difficult to assume that citizen control could be easily negated where participatory leadership is not also

https://doi.org/10.46692/9781529209938.012 Published online by Cambridge University Press

Table 8.6: Parsimonious solution for negation of citizen control in PB (31 cases)

	Expression	Inclusion	PRI	Coverage	Unique coverage	Cases
1	**~pl**	0.912	0.868	0.631	0.299	Ayacucho, Loreto, Mauá, Toronto, Blumenau, Rio Claro, Buenos Aires, Recife (i), São Paulo, Cajamarca
2	**~csd*~bsp*~fbs**	0.979	0.952	0.454	0.122	Ayacucho, Loreto, Mauá, Toronto, Berlin-Lichtenberg
	Model	0.914	0.859	0.753		

Note: pl is participatory leadership; csd is autonomous civil society demands; bsp is bureaucratic support; fbs is financial basis for spending. PRI refers to Proportional Reduction in Inconsistency.

absent. There is no empirical case in the whole dataset that is more out of the set of participatory leadership and more in the set of citizen control of PB. This is why we have good grounds to make the claim that absence of participatory leadership is not necessary but is alone sufficient for failure of PB. The discussion of the Toronto and Buenos Aires cases in Chapter 6 offers the one minor caveat to this claim, but it remains a strong one. The absence of long-term commitment to participatory politics from political leadership uniquely explains the cases of Blumenau, Rio Claro, São Paulo, Recife pre-PT, Cajamarca and Buenos Aires. In building on the previous analysis of Wampler's data alone, this more parsimonious explanation might seem a drastic reduction of explanatory conditions, but it shows the advantage of leveraging a larger number of cases.

The alternative conjunction is an intriguing one because it provides a window to perhaps the major outstanding puzzle that I have yet to solve. This conjunction combines the absence of financial freedom and the absence of bureaucratic buy-in to participatory processes with the absence of active and autonomous civil society. The explanation has relatively low coverage and much of its coverage comes from the fact that it explains cases we have already explained with the first solution term. While Ayacucho, Loreto, Mauá and Toronto are covered by both alternative explanations, this second sufficient

https://doi.org/10.46692/9781529209938.012 Published online by Cambridge University Press

conjunction uniquely explains less. The best example of such a case is Berlin-Lichtenberg, and even there the case's minimal but perceptible successes provide some source of inconsistency in the explanation. In Lichtenberg an activist mayor promoted PB and pushed it as a radical democratic project along with help from some agencies, despite some opposition and indifference from other political leaders. However, many city officials did not seem to trust citizens and looked at the programme through a new public management and public sector reform style lens. There were some important civil society activists pushing the programme, but they were a narrow group; these Berlin districts were fairly constrained in their jurisdiction and had no opportunity to raise funds. In the end, despite some good outcomes and being held up as one of the more radical early German experiments, it is characterized as a good consultation model but not an empowered co-decisional one (Herzberg, 2013; Röcke, 2014). Potential for accountability was lost as oversight committees were disbanded. If there is only one good exemplar case, why is the conjunction so intriguing?

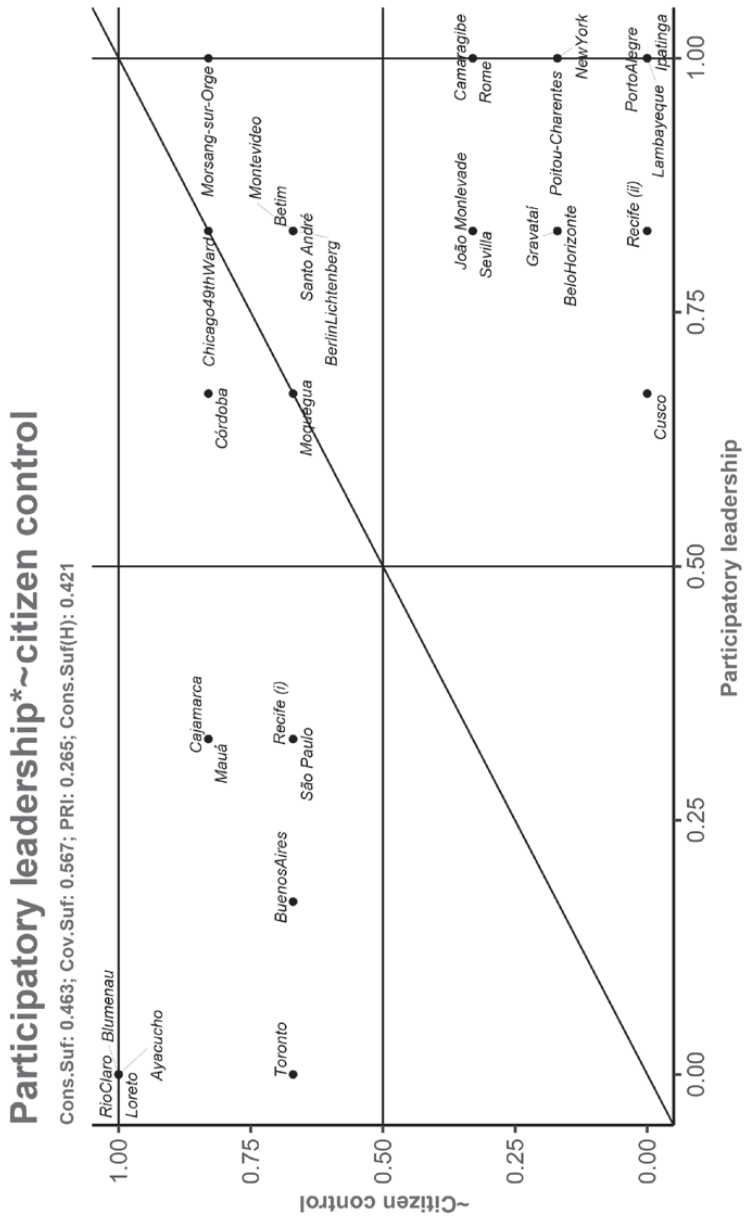
This conjunction of conditions is in a similar part of the property space to many of our true logical contradictions in the dataset and no more than two differences in presence or absence of a condition from all of them. For example, if we chose to include in our minimization row 13, which contains a true logical contradiction, as discussed earlier, the only effect would be that the absence of autonomous civil society demand would be eliminated from this conjunction. In fact, all the contradictory rows agree on the presence of political leadership committed to participation.

The major outstanding question, then, is how we can explain cases where political leaders are committed to participation but the participatory programme fails. This is the case, to an important extent, in Lichtenberg, Montevideo, Morsang-sur-Orge, Chicago, Córdoba, Betim, Moquegua and Santo André, and, at a stretch, could be read to cover Rome. Figure 8.1 plots this relationship to show how those cases cluster.

These cases very much represent middle-of-the-road cases, or perhaps less than good but not awful outcomes. They all combine participatory leadership with some combination of presence or absence of the other three influencing conditions, and tend to contradict logically similar cases on the outcome. The Lichtenberg example represents the characteristics of a least likely case to have participatory leadership and also citizen control of PB because all the other hypothesized influencing conditions are absent.

https://doi.org/10.46692/9781529209938.012 Published online by Cambridge University Press

Figure 8.1: Participatory leadership and absence of citizen control



https://doi.org/10.46692/9781529209938.012 Published online by Cambridge University Press

Following Schneider and Wagemann, the pattern in Figure 8.1 where all cases fall far from the bottom left of the X–Y plot, just goes to show that all these cases are consistent with the statement that participatory leadership is necessary for citizen control and the absence of participatory leadership is sufficient for the absence of citizen control (2012: 246). But what is more interesting is that these mid-range cases make the significant contributions to lowering *coverage*[3] of those set relations. The presence of participatory leadership on its own is not a good explanation for this category of cases' relationship with citizen control. We know that participatory leadership distinguishes the cases in the left of the graph from those on the right, but we do not have yet a grasp of the explanatory condition that better distinguishes those cases in the top right from the bottom right. As we add any of the conditions I have tested here to the explanation, any increase in their coverage is offset by some increase in their inconsistency. The conditions I have included cannot determine this more fine-grained divergence in outcome. By corollary, the hypothesized conditions then explain quite good and quite bad participatory programmes succinctly, but they do not explain middling outcomes well at all. We lack evidence of a variable that differentiates success and failure within the scope of the cases where politicians are actively looking to support citizen participation.

Why participation fails and where explanations fail (so far)

This analysis has shown that there are two definite scenarios in which participatory programmes will fail to empower citizens to be authors of public spending decisions. As supported by the analysis of necessity, there is little evidence to suggest that where a leader's commitment to participatory democracy is absent, PB can still find success. The absence of participatory leadership can be considered a sufficient condition for the absence of citizen control of PB decisions. Based on the evidence of these cases, any remaining uncertainty about failure in the scenario of vacuous leadership is removed when either finances are squeezed or where both strong civil society action and bureaucratic support for participatory programmes is in short supply.

Failures where politicians commit strongly to participation are more difficult to explain. While a combination of poor outcomes across

[3] This is somewhat analogous to contributing to a low r squared value in correlational analysis.

https://doi.org/10.46692/9781529209938.012 Published online by Cambridge University Press

the other three conditions modelled here is almost always sufficient, different combinations of these three conditions in the presence of participatory leadership more often explain successes than failures. Cumulation of evidence has pointed out the relevant direction of cases we need to re-examine. A quick look at the cases and other hypotheses advanced in the literature does not provide an obvious answer to the question identified. More data collection and comparison with similar kinds of cases is needed to answer that puzzle.

A comprehensive answer is beyond the scope of this book, but there are interesting insights in the literature that highlight the most likely avenues for advances in future research. Several cases of PB and some hypothesized explanatory theories were not included in the comparisons detailed previously owing to a lack of data, or because they did not quite meet the scope conditions. The case of Dong-gu, Ulsan, for example, is one of the more successful cases in Korea (Songmin, 2013), and although I could not confirm some details to include it in the analysis, it seems most similar in type to Rome where relatively strong civil society autonomy and political leadership led to some good outcomes despite fiscal constraints and inconveniences to bureaucrats. It is worth considering if there are any insights from cases that may vary outside what I have captured thus far to understand how further analysis can complement those findings. In order to begin to provide some tentative ideas for further consideration, I now zoom out again and consider those cases and conditions to try to understand what has not yet been understood.

Evolving analysis for the longer-term

The QCA approach is useful for indicating different types of PB associated with alternate paths to outcomes. The order of cause and effect has also been a source of controversy in PB activism and scholarship. Ganuza and Baiocchi (2019) explain how administrative reform may erroneously be understood as an outcome of success, when it is better understood as a condition for PB reform in Porto Alegre. There is some evidence that PB can lead to improvements to administration, especially where it is used in a state reconstruction context such as in Dondo (Cabannes and Lipietz, 2018: 76). The approach I have taken may be able to distinguish the alternative paths to success in different such contexts, but despite the clear advantages, one of the limitations I have discussed is that approaches to considering change over time are blunt. Temporal antecedence is the key necessary condition for causal analysis. It is preserved in the

https://doi.org/10.46692/9781529209938.012 Published online by Cambridge University Press

separation of outcomes and influencing conditions in the analysis and the case material, of course, but it may be that a sequencing of some of the influencing conditions that is not preserved actually explains the divergence in outcomes.

For example, it might be that strong civil society demands in the absence of bureaucratic support early on in programmes lead to administrative burdens and implementation delays, or opportunities for the politicization of the bureaucracy. Civil society actors most willing to hold government to account may grow disillusioned and exit the process, as seemed to happen in Chicago, or alternatively, politicians may be pressured more into rule changes that undermine the openness of the process, as seemed to happen in Córdoba and perhaps Montevideo. Even if the presence or absence of the conditions switch later, the damage may be done, and processes may continue but only in a co-opted form. Alternatively, early bureaucratic support for programmes in the absence of strong civil society contributions may incubate processes for a time, allowing them to develop positive mobilization strategies that reach out and establish demonstration effects. I do not have the data to test the relationship systematically, but it seems both an appealing and plausible hypothesis (although contradictory cases are far from unimaginable).

We can also see variance in the trajectory of cases, some of which are characterized by radical reform and incremental decline, as in Porto Alegre; others with punctuations of improvements and retrenchment, such as in Belo Horizonte and Recife. We should not be surprised that participation declines where outcomes of PB are not easy to demonstrate to citizens. Coleman and Sampaio (2017) provide some time-series data to show that declining participation in Belo Horizonte in e-participatory budgets can be partially explained in this way.

It can be similarly useful to abstract from a singular innovation and take a look at participatory culture over the longer term. For a start, those observers focused on civil society have been keen to highlight the importance of associational histories in their accounts of PB, which seem at least important for explaining whether participatory programmes are instigated at all, never mind their successful outcomes. The evidence from João Monlevade may provide indicative signals here of the contribution of participatory innovations over time in developing cultures more amenable to democratic innovations. Nylen (2003b) documents an early PB programme in the city that failed to produce the required changes in society, and was abandoned when the PT lost the administration, but Baiocchi et al's description of the later process

https://doi.org/10.46692/9781529209938.012 Published online by Cambridge University Press

suggested it benefit from learning after the PT regained the mayor's office four years later (2011: 90). Learning can also inspire improved successes elsewhere, of course, as diffusion studies have shown – among the cases examined, the Chicago case paved the way for a more successful case in New York, while the case of Poitou-Charentes had some influence on the take up of PB in Paris (Sintomer et al, 2016).

The emergence of studies that can track the fragility and volatility of innovations are useful here (Alves and Allegretti, 2012; Spada, 2017; Dias et al, 2019). The period in which much fieldwork takes place tends to represent the height of PB's adoption in a country, but despite its prevalence falling away in some regions, PB is still mostly a growing innovation worldwide (Dias and Júlio, 2018: 31). Latin America and Brazil in particular have seen changing modes of participation (Lüchmann et al, 2018), which is, to some extent, explained by political upheaval in those countries. Further collection of data across cases over time may confirm how previous experiences with participation pave the way for later successes. It can also confirm indicators of within-case change such as change in governing regimes, or whether changes in rules and responsibility for PB moving from central cabinet offices to more peripheral ministries is an indicator of change in outcomes.

Democratization programmes have often been thought of as coming in 'waves'. There is a long history of different degrees of imbalances of power in politics. Some waves erode a little of the edifice of power imbalances and sometimes they create a cavern, or whole cliffs fall into the sea. Each participatory programme may simply represent a drop in the ocean. In the same way that physical scientists cannot predict exactly which wave will cause erosion and when, we will always have to satisfy ourselves with some uncertainty about certain conditions leading to transformative outcomes.

Data collection over the long term may also help us better understand the relationship between different types of democratic innovation. The decline of many participatory budgets over the long term, despite their clear successes in democratizing politics, points to the need for programmes to remain agile (see Gilman, 2016: 119). There are significant challenges in keeping commensurate the goal of institutionalization of participatory democratic norms, while avoiding a routinization that closes down the necessary creativity of fresh ideas that sustain democratic politics. Lüchmann et al put it nicely, arguing that as:

> … institutions which challenge what is already instituted, PBs carry with them a need for constant renewal as

https://doi.org/10.46692/9781529209938.012 Published online by Cambridge University Press

> a condition for their own survival. And when such institutions become a routine, they in many cases lose their innovative and daring character, beginning a slow descent to extinction. (2018: 103)

It may be that a more nuanced understanding of devices within participation rather than a focus on named programmes is useful. One potential explanation of failure where the conditions for participation are in place is that the spaces for citizen participation can become cluttered. PB partly worked in Porto Alegre because it was the main venue for demands and an appropriate one for the civic culture of the city at the time (Avritzer, 2009). Understanding these long-term trajectories of participation will take us back to taking conceptualization seriously, understanding how we should distinguish different democratic devices and how they can be usefully sequenced and combined (Saward, 2003). As PB has travelled, we increasingly see hybrid models emerging that incorporate different devices from other models of participation.

In Australia, where randomly selected deliberative mini-publics have been popular, those designs have been effectively applied to public budgets (Hartz-Karp and Weymouth, 2018). Rather than focus on inclusion through mass mobilization, those designs aim to achieve equal opportunities through more systematic exclusion, avoiding partisan mobilization and mobilizing usual suspects (although, like PB, the extent to which mini-publics have achieved that in practice varies). The key advantage of those designs, which is often forgotten in the clamour to demonstrate long-term empowerment and institutionalized democratic learning, is that they rotate participants back out of power, so that new elites cannot form. PB processes were actually more conscious than most other democratic innovations in striving to achieve a rotation of delegates in their procedural rules, but often the pool of potential delegates becomes more homogenous over time. It would be interesting to compare innovations that hold strong to principles of rotation and those that do not to understand the effects of that design choice.

Expanding cases and scope of designs may bring insights. PB and participatory democracy have become prominent in countries at different stages of regime change and governance modernization, or with varying understandings of democratic citizenship. Cabannes and Ming (2014) describe quite an empowered case in rural Chengdou, where training materials encouraged participation to question traditional authority, and where the long-term planning often elusive

https://doi.org/10.46692/9781529209938.012 Published online by Cambridge University Press

in PB was encouraged by allowing citizens to apply for loans above the nominal PB funds (Cabannes, 2018: 248). Co-financing PB projects with donors or business groups investing in PB is also popular in models in Eastern Europe and Russia (Shulga and Vagin, 2018). These cases may be considered quite different in kind to those I compare systematically, but the focus on innovative funding mechanisms entreats us to think about whether the financial variables could be further disaggregated to better capture differences in administrative decentralization vis-à-vis alternative funding models.

Invoking decentralization may also again raise the question of whether size or jurisdiction is an important explanatory condition for success in PB. There are several arguments that small-scale democracy lacks some level of alienation that is actually necessary for positive elements of contentious politics to flourish (Mansbridge, 1983; Ryan et al, 2018). Those familiar patterns of dominance of fora by the usual suspects can be seen in descriptions of cases in Morsang-sur-Orge, Chicago, and to some extent in Rome, and in the gender and class differences reported among elected delegates and speakers in assemblies. Nevertheless, the prevalence of these factors in itself seems to be evidence that size is too simplistic an explanatory factor, and the failure of thousands of years of effort to explain the optimum size of a polity (Ryan et al, 2018) leaves me less confident that it is an avenue for fruitful investigation.

A further trend prominent in some large cities since the 2010s is the increase in the use of multichannel participation (Spada and Allegretti, 2017). Here cities may offer a range of more or less demanding opportunities of participation to citizens. The approach is sometimes justified on the basis that citizens will engage in ways that make sense to them or where their personal resources will best be used. A presumed advantage is that agility can reign, and unused channels can become redundant. However, the temptation can be to rely on the more popular, less demanding channels that are cheaper in terms of their financial and in-kind costs, and suffer the fate of a lack of vibrancy and demonstration effects over time.

A final potential confounding variable linked to the length of participatory programmes that has escaped significant attention is the question of communication. Following the failures of the British Columbian Citizens' Assembly to have their recommendations accepted in referendum, advocates and organizers of randomly selected mini-publics have made strong efforts to promote their work in the media. In Porto Alegre it was also clear that the administration got communication right early on. Politics is always a game of communication campaigning,

https://doi.org/10.46692/9781529209938.012 Published online by Cambridge University Press

and deliberative and participatory democrats have only more lately returned their attention to how invited spaces communicate with the wider public sphere.

In summary, there are at least three future strategies for understanding these mid-range cases better. One is to investigate more systematically whether they are part of a longer-term trend and have more distal effects (Jacquet and van der Does, 2020). A second is to more clearly separate different devices the cases employ and not treat them as simply one model, allowing more fine-grained analyses. A third is to follow up in future comparative studies on the several alternate hypotheses I have briefly outlined – from understanding the role of media, the style of mobilization, or use of alternate avenues of participation in the case, to identifying better indicators of change in within-case analysis.

Of course, we will have to live with outliers too – 'Sometimes, the situation can be significantly affected by a single individual' (Sintomer et al, 2016: 163) – but the research I have presented has at least helped remove a lot of uncertainty and explained the potential for future analysis. The final chapter looks forward to the practical implications of the analysis presented, and potential future analyses suggested for deepening democracy more generally.

https://doi.org/10.46692/9781529209938.012 Published online by Cambridge University Press